Question 1:

International Relations (IR) as a field of study has been rattled to a certain degree by the seminal work of Robert Jervis (1976) on cognitive constraints on rational decision making within a realist framework. In his work, Jervis exposes serious constraints in the form of misconceptions and bias in the practice of foreign policy owing to the error-and-bias profile of foreign policy makers. J. M. Goldgeier and P. E. Tetlock (2001) in their article *"Psychology and International Relations Theory"* correctly point out that *"the central macro-level theories of international politics appear to rely on minimal assumptions about human cognition and motivation."* They challenge the realists, who view states strictly as power or security maximizers and equally liberals and neoliberal institutionalists who see states as wealth or utility maximizers. As constructivists, they argue that "*human nature is itself a social construction and the appropriate focus is on the intricate webs of normative understanding that shape and are shaped by international actors."* As a student of IR and a practitioner of Enterprise Marketing, I entirely concur with their conclusion that "*Neoliberal institutionalist and constractivist theories could draw much more effectively than they do from bounded rationality in competitive markets and mixed-motives games (Simon 1957,1982) Kahnenman & Tversky (1979, 1984)"* Their assertion is readily intuitive for the obvious reason that foreign policy creators and decision makers are human beings and are naturally influenced by emotions, traditions, early childhood memories, anecdotal experiences, personality traits, cultural factors and the like. Yet and for that very reason of dealing with the unpredictability and ambiguity of human behavior on both an individual and collective level, I join, likely for different reasons and motivations, those who say that constructivists theories have their own limitations and hence a limited (albeit significant) role in the study and understanding of IR. My reasoning does not emanate from a scholastic or

paradigmatic point of view, but rather from the concern for scholastic temptation to "scientificate" the field and "formulate" its application to IR. By the same token I side with the advocates of expanding, and accelerating the methodization of the field. Without it how would we ever know if the U.S. decision to invade Iraq was based on economical opportunism (Haliburton), personal ego (43 needing to do better than 41), ideological or dogmatic (neo-conservatives). At least we know for sure that it was not WMDs.

In order to substantiate my core argument in answer to this question it is imperative that we first understand what insights and contributions do constructivist theories make to a better understanding of IR. Neta Crawford (2000) reminds us of the importance of constructivist theories when she says: "*Theories of international politics and security depend on assumptions about emotion that are rarely articulated and which may not be correct".* For example Deterrence theory may be fundamentally flawed because its assumptions and policy prescriptions do not fully acknowledge and take into account reasonable human responses to threat and fear. Kenneth Waltz argues that *"one cannot expect of political leaders the nicely calculated decisions that the word 'rationality suggests,"* and Hans Morgenthau remarked that *"the possibility of constructing, as it were, a counter-theory of irrational politics is worth exploring,"* In the absence of constructivist theories, how would we be able to explain why democratic states sometime do engage in war contrary to the democratic peace theory? Or why do certain states in certain situations respond in an irrational manner to deterrence signals when rational theory would dictate the exact opposite response? Quincy Wright argues that mutual fear is a cause of war, and that fear of war prompts citizens to keep even undesirable rulers in power. That level of understanding can only be derived from theories that draw on human psychology. Even Aristotle saw emotion as something that could be manipulated by rhetoric and that would

also affect the reception of arguments and norms of behavior (Crawford:2000). Her article goes into explaining the effect of psychologically centric factors that affect rational decision makers in situation such as emotions, interpretation, emotional relationships, threat perception, normative perceptions etc. Having established the value of *"cognitive social psychology and behavioral decision theory that simultaneously expands on and qualifies earlier error-and-bias portraits of the foreign policy maker"* (Kahnenman & Tversky: 1979, 1984) and its contributions to a better understanding of IR, it is appropriate to introduce a number of caveats to its excessive use and application in explaining IR phenomenon. The two main arguments are naturally brought up by realists, liberalists and positivists whose theories originate in more "precise sciences" such as economics, game theories, risk analysis etc. First, that the introduction of the "softer" elements of cognitive psychology, emotions etc. do not lend themselves to "methodologizing" IR decision making processes because of its speculative, ambiguous and sometime case specific application and therefore reducing the effectiveness of this tool for "intelligent" foreign policy decision making. Second is the unverifiable nature of the effect of emotions, feelings, personality traits etc., on decision making as such are never officially documented or even acknowledged which makes it almost impossible for empirical analysis. These arguments have certain merit and indicate in my opinion the need to advance further research in the field and its (more) systematic application in IR in general. I do however believe that they are not only useful but mandatory in postmortem historical analysis of specific events. A good case in point would be the Cuban Missile Crisis of 1961. During the crisis, the particulars of which are well known, records indicate the presence and ultimately the effect of such emotional elements of fear, trust etc. (Crawford:2000) offers a few quotations: U.S. Secretary of Defense Robert McNamara said, *"We are fearful of these MiG-21s"* based in Cuba. Secretary of State Dean Rusk said, *"Mr.*

Khrushchev. . . knows that we have a substantial nuclear superiority, but he also knows that we don't really live under fear of his nuclear weapons to the extent that he has to live under fear of ours." Members of the Executive Committee of the National Security Council (ExComm) were concerned not to display fear of the Soviet Union. National Security Adviser McGeorge Bundy said, *"We don't want to look as if we got scared off from anything."* On one of the most hectic days of the crisis, Vice President Lyndon Johnson said*: "Every damn place you go, there's fear."*

This example illustrates not only the existence of emotions in high profile IR conflicts but also their acknowledgement in day-to-day discourse during the crisis. It also illustrates that diaries, transcripts, and where feasible, post hoc interviews with actors may help scholars understand the role and consequences of emotions, paying attention to the subtle ways emotions are expressed, managed, and denied, and what happens to those who express emotions in decision making settings. (Crawford:2000). It may also offer a solution to the two main arguments levied against the excessive or even partial use of constructive theories as previously described.

Question 2:

The European Union (EU) is likely the most ambitious transnational political project since the formation of the United States of America in 1776. From as early as the late 50's to the mid-90s, the EU focused on creating and regulating the internal market. EU policies during this phase swere efficient in that they resulted in positive gains for all member states. Since the late 1990s, however, the focus of the EU has shifted from market building to the challenge of economic reform, security co-operation, political integration and finally, if possible social integration. It is true that the popularity of the EU within its citizenry has declined and its legitimacy has been challenged from within and from abroad. Those who question the viability of the EU as a security community and question the existence if not the feasibility of a European collective identity have some legitimate if not compelling arguments. In fact the recent economic crisis in the Euro Zone has all the more brought into question the long-term survivability of the EU. I would argue that the EU is in fact a security community and that this in itself has a unifying influence on its future. I would also argue that a "European identity" is a misnomer on a social or cultural basis but may emerge at the (foreign) policy level so long as the economic crisis gets resolved and policy rather than structural or governance issues are resolved. Such would be mandatory in order to close the gap between individual governments own interests and that of their population (internal stability) and subsequently aggregate the common political and economic interests into a European Union context.

Let us first examine the European (collective) identity factor. An accepted definition of collective identity is *"the shared definition of a group that derives from members' common interests, experiences, and solidarity"* (Taylor & Whittier 1992). According to Klandermans and de Weerd, *group identification* forms the link between collective and social identity, and thus

forms the bridge between the individual and collective level of identity. A group's collective identity can be studied by examining such phenomena as the group's symbols, rituals, beliefs and the values its members share. On that basis it is clear that European diversification in terms of ethnicity, heritage, history, tradition and culture makes this level of integration strictly impossible. On the other hand focusing on the core definition and referring to "*a group that derives from members' common interests, experiences, and solidarity"* is indeed possible albeit it has come under severe challenge in terms of common economic, population movements and state accountability (e.g. Greece, Spain, Portugal). Adler & Barnett (1998) offer a framework for the study of security communities including baseline definitions. In the context of the EU we refer to a pluralistic rather than an amalgamated community. That means a transnational region comprised of sovereign states whose people maintain *"a dependable expectation of peaceful change"*. Owing to their shared structure members of a pluralistic security community do not expect acts of aggression from other state members and in return exercise themselves restraint. In this environment conflicts of interests between member states, which may well arise, are resolved peacefully through diplomacy, dialog and group policy adherence. Adler & Barnett (1998) define a community by three main characteristics. First, members have shared identities, values, and meanings. Secondly community members have many-sided and direct relations, direct interactions (face-to-face) and thirdly communities exhibit "a reciprocity that expresses some degree of long-term interest and perhaps altruism" Long-term interest derives from knowledge of those with whom one is interacting and altruism can be understood as a sense of obligation and responsibility. This definition in my opinion is sufficient to examine the basic premise of the detractors of the EU. Notwithstanding its present challenges the EU is indeed a security community. The first criterion is established to a greater or lesser degree in that "shared

identities, values and meanings" at the highest level do exist. Member states are European (geographically) and to varying degrees culturally compatible, they are all democratic and apply the traditional Western meaning of the term (separation of state and church, free elections etc.) Secondly they have open borders, free population movement, political forums (EU Parliament) and thirdly (up until recently) exhibited reciprocity in terms of foreign policy, trade agreements etc. So is there a European identity? Recent events and trends (e.g. illegal migration) have applied pressure to conformity in this area. The challenge remains as to how to balance national interest with transnational policies while maintaining a democracy that responds to the will of the people of the sovereign states. In "*What's Wrong with the European Union and How to Fix It"* By Simon Hix. Polity, 2008, 228 pp as Reviewed by Andrew Imbrie, Imbrie defines the challenge in extremely contemporary terms: "Officials at the national level are increasingly required to implement EU policies that run counter to their elected platforms or result in uneven burdens on certain sectors of society. This apparent lack of responsiveness on the part of governments to the expressed preferences of their citizens has fueled the debate on the national democratic deficit." (how do you say this in Greek?) Hix argues that the problem resides not in the EU's institutional design but rather in the changing nature of its policy agenda, which has evolved from market building to the challenges of economic and social reform. Recognizing that the latter issues are inherently contentious, Hix calls for a new style of politics through a more open contest for power at the European level. Hix's solution involves the introduction of limited democratic politics (LDP) whereby " EU citizens would develop habits of loyal opposition such that they would learn to oppose a particular governing coalition instead of the EU as a whole. Over time, Hix predicts, these habits would contribute to the development of a new political identity at the European level, where citizens of all political persuasions accept the will of a

political majority." I conclude that the EU may well respond to its detractors if not by design by absolute necessity. Very recent events tend to substantiate my argument fragile as they are

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